

Bubble detachment from circular cavities and flat surfaces

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We determine the maximum stable volume of bubbles attached to flat surfaces as a function of contact radius, contact angle, and capillary length. By solving the Young–Laplace equation using a shooting method, we calculate equilibrium bubble shapes and determine when bubbles detach through three distinct modes: necking at the cavity, sideways instability, and spreading followed by necking on the surrounding surface. Our predicted detachment volumes agree well with experimental measurements of electrolytic, boiling, and carbonated bubbles, as well as pendant drops. These results bring together and extend previous analytical estimates, and by symmetry also apply directly to pendant drops.

1 Introduction

1.1 Motivation

Annually, around 10^{11} kg of hydrogen gas is used in industry, mostly to produce fertilisers via the Haber process and to reduce metal ores in steelmaking and aluminium production¹. Currently, more than 95% of hydrogen is produced from fossil fuels, largely from natural gas via steam methane reforming², which releases significant quantities of CO_2 . Diversifying away from fossil fuels is essential to maintain a stable Earth climate system and ensure the long-term survival of human society³. Water electrolysis driven by renewable electricity is a promising alternative¹, splitting water into hydrogen and oxygen without direct CO_2 emissions. However, gas bubbles that form and remain attached to the electrode surface limit the efficiency of water electrolysis. These bubbles block the active area, impede ion transport, and increase ohmic resistance^{4–7}. Electrolysis will also be important for life-support systems on future manned lunar and Martian bases, where water extracted from local ice deposits could provide a source of hydrogen and oxygen⁸. Understanding and controlling bubble detachment is therefore relevant both to improving electrolysis efficiency on Earth and to enabling efficient resource utilisation in low-gravity environments⁹.

Bubble detachment also plays a role in the transport of naturally occurring gases. Methane seepage from the seafloor releases an estimated 6–12 Mt of methane per year from anoxic sediments, geological reservoirs, and degrading methane-hydrate deposits¹⁰. Bubbles with radii below approximately 3 mm can dissolve and biodegrade in the water column before reaching the ocean surface¹¹, whereas larger bubbles can escape into the atmosphere. Since methane is a potent greenhouse gas, understanding the conditions governing bubble detachment and subsequent transport is relevant to quantifying its environmental impact.

1.2 Background

For a bubble attached to a horizontal surface (illustrated in Fig. 1) the scale over which surface tension σ balances fluid density contrast $\rho_{\text{out}} - \rho_{\text{in}}$ and gravity g is the capillary length¹²,

$$\lambda \equiv \sqrt{\frac{\sigma}{(\rho_{\text{out}} - \rho_{\text{in}})g}}. \quad (1)$$

The capillary length sets the radius of curvature of the bubble interface due to gravity. Two distinct attachment modes are recognised in the literature¹³. *Pinned* bubbles have a fixed contact radius r_0 , with contact angle ϕ_0 changing as the bubble inflates. *Spreading* bubbles have a fixed contact angle ϕ_0 , with contact radius r_0 changing as the bubble inflates.

For *pinned* bubbles, the classical Tate volume¹⁴ assumes that a bubble detaches when the contact angle reaches $\phi_0 = \pi/2$, balancing buoyancy and surface tension to give $V = 2\pi\lambda^2 r_0$. Chesters¹⁵ refined this in the limit $r_0/\lambda \rightarrow 0$, also assuming detachment at $\phi_0 = \pi/2$. Subsequent experiments, however, show systematic deviations from both models^{16–20}, due to non-spherical interfaces and the onset of asymmetrical instabilities. Stability analyses indicate that the bubble becomes unstable to asymmetrical perturbations for cavity radii $r_0 > 3.219\lambda$ ²¹, and no stable bubble exists at fixed volume for $r_0 > 3.832\lambda$ ²². For such large cavities, lateral detachment from the rim is observed experimentally¹⁹.

The study of *spreading* bubble departure dates back to Fritz²³, who numerically estimated the maximum bubble volume as $V = 0.887\lambda^3 \phi_0^3$ in the limit of small contact angles ϕ_0 . Focusing instead on large contact angles, Phan et al.²⁴ developed an empirical model for bubble departure from nanocoated surfaces. More recent models account for contact-angle hysteresis²⁵, using advancing, receding^{26,27}, or dynamic²⁸ angles as inputs. Experiments, however, reveal systematic deviations from these predictions, particularly for bubbles on superhydrophobic and high-contact-angle surfaces²⁹.

Bubble detachment can also be triggered by coalescence with a neighbouring bubble. Whether neighbouring bubbles coalesce is determined by their width relative to the distance between nucleation sites³⁰. Following coalescence, the merged bubble may either remain attached or detach from the surface, depending on the balance between adhesion and viscous dissipation³¹.

1.3 Aims

Here we treat pinned and spreading bubbles together, rather than as separate problems. We address three fundamental questions:

Q1 What is the volume of the bubble when it detaches?

Q2 How wide does the bubble grow before it detaches?

Q3 How does it detach?

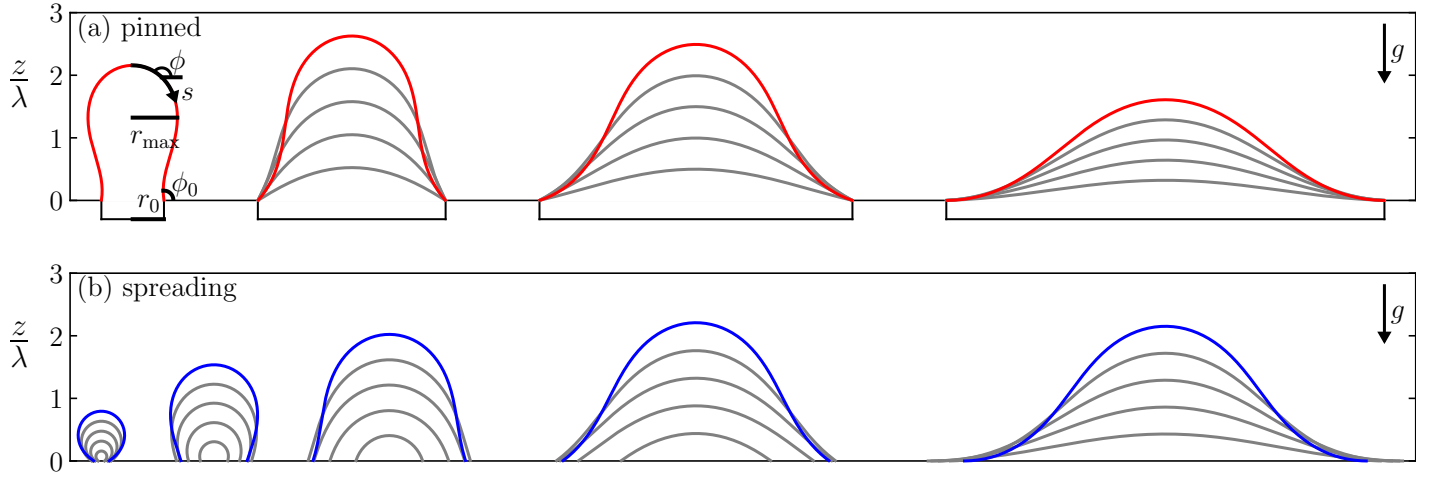


Figure 1 (a) Profiles of pinned bubbles with contact radius $r_0/\lambda \in \{0.5, 1.5, 2.5, 3.5\}$, from left to right. The largest pinned bubble for each contact radius is shown in red. (b) Profiles of spreading bubbles with contact angle $\phi_0/\pi \in \{0.2, 0.4, 0.6, 0.8, 1.0\}$, from left to right. The largest spreading bubble for each contact angle is shown in blue. The coordinate system (ϕ, s) used for solving Equation 9 and bubble properties $\phi_0, r_0, r_{\max}$ are shown in black.

We consider a simplified system consisting of a circular cavity of radius r_0 containing an already-nucleated bubble, surrounded by a smooth horizontal surface with a single-valued, non-hysteretic contact angle ϕ_0 . That is, the contact angle is independent of whether the three-phase contact line advances or recedes. The fluid is quiescent, so forces are purely hydrostatic, and the system is physically equivalent to a pendant drop. Throughout this paper we refer to it as a bubble, but our results apply equally to pendant drops. We determine the detachment size for pinned and spreading bubbles across the full range of cavity sizes, capillary lengths ($0 \leq r_0/\lambda \leq \infty$), and contact angles ($0 \leq \phi_0 \leq \pi$).

2 Methods

2.1 Governing equation

To calculate the bubble shape, we use and extend the method developed by Fritz²³; consider a bubble attached to a solid horizontal surface, as depicted in Figure 1; z denotes the height above the substrate. The interface of the bubble satisfies the Young–Laplace Equation³²:

$$\sigma \left(\frac{1}{R_1} + \frac{1}{R_2} \right) = p_{\text{in}} - p_{\text{out}}, \quad (2)$$

where R_1 and R_2 are the principal radii of curvature at a point on the interface, and $p_{\text{in}}, p_{\text{out}}$ are the pressures inside and outside the bubble, respectively.

Assuming both fluid phases are in hydrostatic equilibrium, the pressures at height z are given in terms of reference pressures $p_{0\text{in}}$ and $p_{0\text{out}}$ at the substrate ($z = 0$):

$$p_{\text{in}}(z) = p_{0\text{in}} - \rho_{\text{in}}gz, \quad (3)$$

$$p_{\text{out}}(z) = p_{0\text{out}} - \rho_{\text{out}}gz. \quad (4)$$

Substituting into Equation 2 and dividing through by the surface tension gives:

$$\frac{1}{R_1} + \frac{1}{R_2} = \frac{p_{0\text{in}} - p_{0\text{out}}}{\sigma} + \frac{z}{\lambda^2}. \quad (5)$$

To eliminate the pressure difference $p_{0\text{in}} - p_{0\text{out}}$, we evaluate Equation 5 at the apex of the bubble, where $z = h$ and the interface is spherical, so $R_1 = R_2 = R_h$:

$$\frac{2}{R_h} = \frac{p_{0\text{in}} - p_{0\text{out}}}{\sigma} + \frac{h}{\lambda^2}. \quad (6)$$

Subtracting this from Equation 5 gives:

$$\frac{1}{R_1} + \frac{1}{R_2} = \frac{2}{R_h} + \frac{z - h}{\lambda^2}. \quad (7)$$

Assuming the bubble is axisymmetric about the vertical axis, we describe the interface shape in terms of arc length s from the apex, distance from the axis r , and the angle ϕ between the interface tangent and the horizontal. The two principal curvatures can be found through trigonometry³³:

$$R_1 = \frac{ds}{d\phi}, \quad R_2 = \frac{r}{\sin \phi}. \quad (8)$$

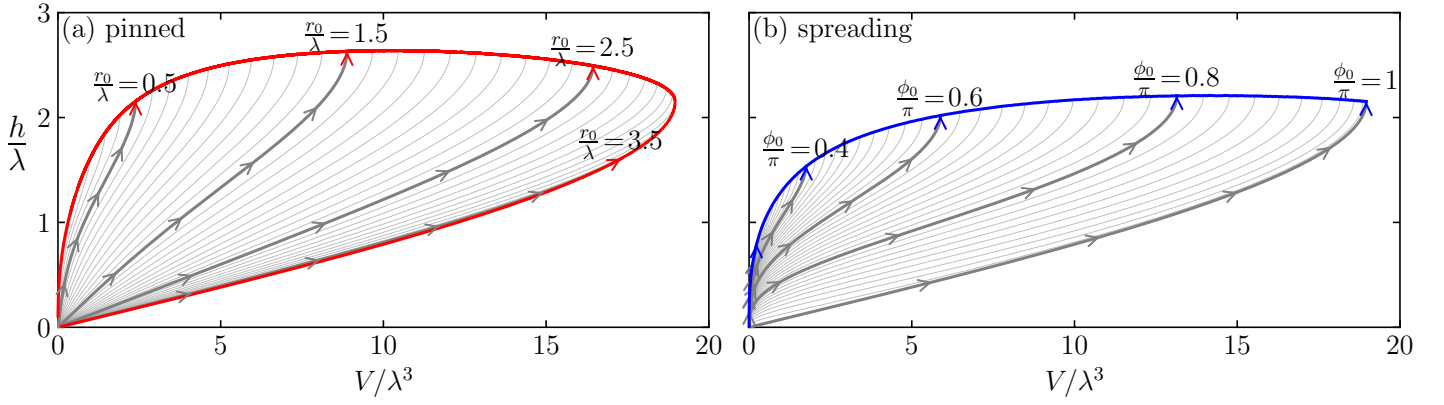


Figure 2 Bubble height h and volume V during evolution. (a) Grey lines: pinned bubbles with constant contact radius r_0 ; red line: locus of the maximum-volume pinned bubbles. (b) Grey lines: spreading bubbles with constant contact angle ϕ_0 ; red line: locus of the maximum-volume spreading bubbles. In (a) and (b), thick grey lines and arrows correspond to the bubbles shown in Figure 1.

Substituting into Equation 7 and multiplying by the capillary length yields the governing equation for the bubble shape:

$$\lambda \frac{d\phi}{ds} + \frac{\lambda \sin \phi}{r} = \frac{2\lambda}{R_h} + \frac{z-h}{\lambda}. \quad (9)$$

This equation describes the curvature of an axisymmetric interface under gravity. All lengths appear scaled by the capillary length, implying self-similar bubble shapes and universal scaling with λ .

2.2 Numerical solution

We solve Equation 9 using a shooting method, initiating the integration at the apex ($r=0$, $z=h$, $\phi=\pi$) and sampling 10^4 logarithmically spaced initial guesses for R_h over $10^{-3}\lambda < R_h < 10^3\lambda$. The equations are integrated along the arc length s with a step size of $10^{-5}\lambda$ using the Adams–Bashforth method³³. The complete set of calculations requires approximately 250 s on a single core of an M4 MacBook Pro. The code and accompanying data are freely available³⁴.

For pinned bubbles, the integration is terminated when $r=r_0$. For a given cavity radius r_0 , this yields a family of equilibrium profiles parameterised by R_h , shown in Figure 1a. We assume that each profile nucleates as a flat interface spanning the cavity, and the contact angle decreases from $\phi_0=\pi$ as the bubble inflates. For spreading bubbles, the integration is terminated when $\phi=\phi_0$. The resulting profiles are shown in Figure 1b, for a sequence of contact angles. Here we see the contact radii increase from $r_0=0$ as the bubbles inflate.

3 Results and Discussion

3.1 Bubble growth

To characterize the evolution of a growing pinned bubble, we plot the bubble height h as a function of volume V in Figure 2a, where the bubble volume

$$V = \int_0^h \pi r^2 dz, \quad (10)$$

is integrated using the midpoint rule. Each family of solutions in Figure 1a gives rise to a curve $h(V)$ in Figure 2a. Upon nucleation inside the cavity, the bubble has zero volume and zero height, corresponding to the bottom-left point in Figure 2a. As the bubble grows, its height h increases and it remains pinned on the $h(V)$ curve until one of three conditions is met:

1. If the contact angle ϕ_0 falls below the contact angle ϕ_0 of the system, the contact line unpins and spreads across the surface¹³. The bubble then follows an $h(V)$ curve in Figure 2b.
2. If the contact angle ϕ_0 reaches π , the interface becomes unstable to non-axisymmetric perturbations²¹, the interface peak shifts to one side of the cavity, and the bubble detaches laterally. This occurs for $r_0 > 3.219\lambda$, at the right of Figure 2a.
3. If the bubble volume reaches a point where the $h(V)$ curve becomes vertical, the height can increase without a further increase in volume. The solution is no longer unique, and the interface becomes unstable. This leads to axisymmetric detachment. Each $h(V)$ curve in Figure 2a is therefore truncated at this point.

Figure 2b extends the analysis to spreading bubbles. It shows the possible volumes and heights for contact angles across the full range $0 \leq \phi_0 \leq \pi$. As with pinned bubbles, each curve reaches a point where $h(V)$ becomes vertical. This point defines the detachment volume of the spreading bubble, and the curves are truncated there. The detachment volume is seen in Figure 2b to increase with contact angle ϕ_0 . The tallest possible bubble has $h = 2.642\lambda$, which is considerably less than the analytical limit of $h = 3.42\lambda$ established for two-dimensional columnar pendant drops³⁵.

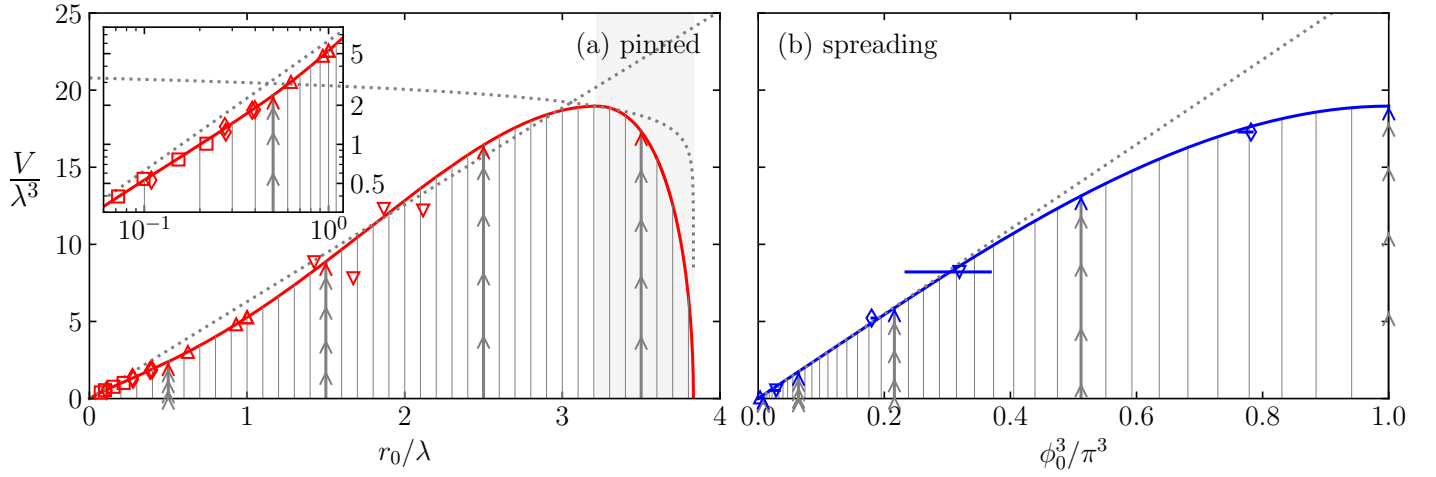


Figure 3 (a) Volume V of pinned bubbles. The solid red line shows the detachment volume as a function of contact radius r_0 , while the dotted grey line, $V = 2\pi\lambda^2 r_0$, shows the Tate prediction¹⁴. Empty symbols denote detachment volumes measured in experiments: squares¹⁷, diamonds¹⁸, down-triangles¹⁹, and up-triangles²⁰. The shaded region $3.219\lambda < r_0 < 3.832\lambda$ indicates where ϕ_0 reaches π and the bubble becomes unstable to asymmetric perturbations. Inset: same data on a logarithmic scale, showing the small-radius range in greater detail. (b) Volume V of spreading bubbles. The solid blue line shows the detachment volume as a function of contact angle ϕ_0 , which is cubed to allow comparison with the Fritz²³ prediction $V = 0.887\lambda^3 \phi_0^3$ (dotted grey line). Empty symbols denote detachment volumes measured in experiments: up-triangles²⁷, down-triangles²⁶, and diamonds²⁹; error bars indicate advancing and receding contact angles. In (a) and (b), thick grey lines and arrows correspond to the bubbles shown in Figure 1.

3.2 Bubble detachment volume

Figure 3(a) shows the detachment volume V_p of pinned bubbles. The detachment volume increases with cavity radius, following a trend close to the Tate prediction¹⁴; deviations arise due to the non-spherical interface shape under buoyancy. These deviations are confirmed by experimental measurements of bubbles emitted from tubes in water¹⁷, bubbles in carbonated water from millimetric cavities¹⁸, and pendant drops²⁰. The solid line in Figure 3c shows the contact angle ϕ_0 at departure. Contrary to Chesters' assumption¹⁵, the contact angle at detachment exceeds $\pi/2$ for all cavity radii. For cavities with $r_0 > 3.219\lambda$, ϕ_0 reaches π and the interface becomes unstable to non-axisymmetric perturbations²¹, causing the bubble to slide to one side and detach laterally. No stable solution exists for $r_0 > 3.832\lambda$ ²²; above this radius, Equation 9 has no solution with $\phi_0 < \pi$ and lateral detachment is immediate, consistent with the dripping behaviour reported in sessile drop experiments¹⁹. Figure 3c also shows the minimum contact angle reached during bubble evolution. If the surface contact angle ϕ_0 exceeds this minimum, the bubble will become unpinning and spread across the surface. The minimum angle closely follows the fit $\phi_0/\pi = \sqrt{r_0/3.5\lambda}$.

Figure 3b shows the detachment volume V_s of spreading bubbles. For small contact angles, the Fritz prediction is accurate. As $\phi_0 \rightarrow \pi$, however, the detachment volume saturates below Fritz's extrapolation at a maximum of $V = 18.96\lambda^3$. Our results are confirmed by measurements of water electrolysis²⁷, boiling²⁶, and air bubbles over superhydrophobic surfaces²⁹. Figure 3d shows the radius of the bubble contact area at departure, which closely follows the fit $r_0 = 3.219\lambda(\phi_0/\pi)^2$. Figure 3d also shows the maximum radius of the contact area during bubble evolution. In all cases, the maximum contact radius exceeds the departure radius, indicating that the contact line initially spreads and then partially recedes prior to detachment. In some instances¹⁶, the contact radius may again equal the cavity radius r_0 , re-pinning the bubble at the cavity, in which case the departure volume corresponds to V_p .

3.3 Bubble coalescence

3.4 Bubble contact angle and radius

3.5 Pinning and unpinning of the contact line

Figure 6 gives the decision tree for bubble evolution up to detachment. Given ϕ_0 , r_0 , and the capillary length λ of a specific system, the detachment size is determined by following this tree, using the functions plotted in Figure 3. Table 1 gives the properties of the limiting bubble configurations, where we see that the largest pinned and spreading bubbles in fact correspond to the same solution of Equation 9. Note that we measure the bubble volume above the contact line; some gas may remain attached to the surface after detachment, so the true released volume may be slightly less.

4 Conclusions

4.1 Answers to the two key questions

We now return to the two questions posed at the outset.

Answer to Q1. The detachment volume depends on whether the bubble is pinned or spreading. For pinned bubbles, the detachment volume rises nearly linearly with cavity radius, closely following the Tate prediction $V = 2\pi\lambda^2 r_0$, with quantitative corrections arising from the non-spherical interface shape under buoyancy (Figure 3). For spreading bubbles, the detachment volume increases monotonically

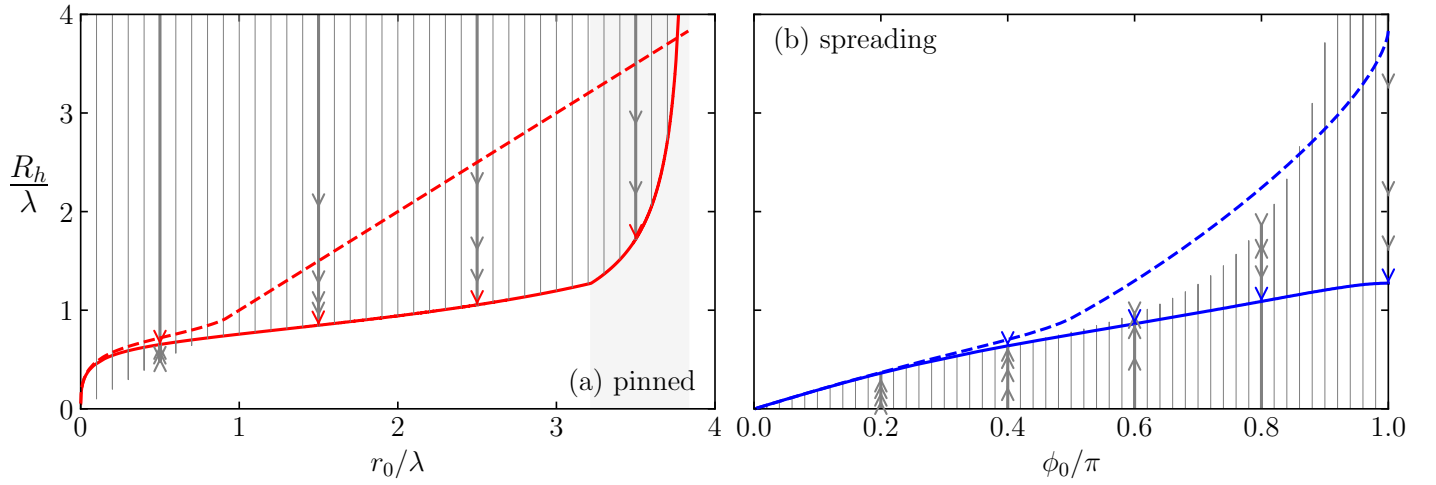


Figure 4 (a) Apex radius of curvature R_h of pinned bubbles with contact radius r_0 . Solid red line: R_h at detachment; dashed red line: the maximum horizontal radius $r_{\max}$ reached during evolution. The shaded region $3.219\lambda < r_0 < 3.832\lambda$ indicates where ϕ_0 reaches π and the bubble becomes unstable to asymmetric perturbations. (b) Apex radius of curvature R_h of spreading bubbles with contact angle ϕ_0 . Solid blue line: R_h at detachment; dashed red line: the maximum horizontal radius $r_{\max}$ reached during evolution. In (a) and (b), vertical grey solid lines show evolution of R_h up to detachment, with arrowheads corresponding to the bubbles shown in Figure 1.

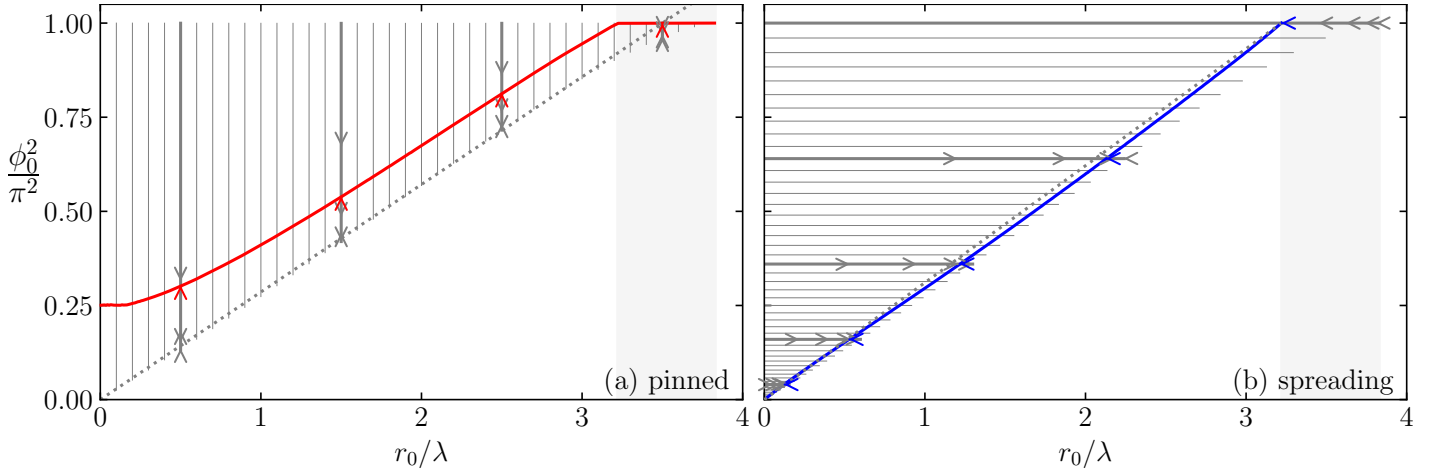


Figure 5 (a) Contact angle ϕ_0 of pinned bubbles with contact radius r_0 . The solid red line is the contact angle ϕ_0 at detachment, the vertical grey lines and arrows show the evolution of the contact angle ϕ_0 up to detachment, and the dashed grey line $r_0 = 3.5\lambda(\phi_0/\pi)^2$. (b) Contact radius r_0 of spreading bubbles with contact angle ϕ_0 . The solid blue line is the contact radius r_0 at detachment, and the dotted grey line is the fit $r_0 = 3.219\lambda(\phi_0/\pi)^2$. In (a) and (b), solid grey lines and arrows show evolution up to detachment, and the range $3.219\lambda < r_0 < 3.832\lambda$ is shaded.

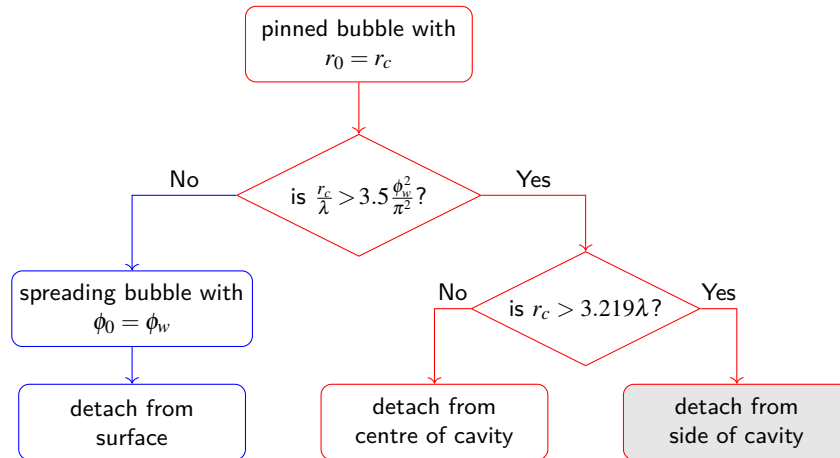


Figure 6 Decision tree for bubble detachment. Red branches correspond to pinned bubbles and blue branches to spreading bubbles. The cavity radius is r_c and the wetting angle on the surrounding substrate is ϕ_w .

Table 1 Key properties of significant bubbles, expressed in units of the capillary length λ . Shown are the contact angle ϕ_0 , contact radius r_0 , apex height h , apex radius of curvature R_h , volume V . Extremal quantities are highlighted in bold

Significance	ϕ_0/π	r_0/λ	h/λ	R_h/λ	V/λ^3
Largest pinned bubble	1.000	3.219	2.152	1.274	18.96
Largest spreading bubble	1.000	3.219	2.152	1.274	18.96
Tallest pinned bubble	0.7750	1.720	2.642	0.8867	10.62
Tallest spreading bubble	0.8330	2.297	2.213	1.126	14.48
Largest stable contact radius	1.000	3.832	0.000	∞	0.000

with contact angle and saturates at $V_s = 18.96\lambda^3$ as $\phi_0 \rightarrow \pi$, below the Fritz extrapolation (Figure 3b). Both results are confirmed by independent experimental datasets spanning electrolytic, boiling, and carbonated bubbles, as well as pendant drops.

Answer to Q2. The detachment mode is determined by which threshold is reached first during bubble growth (Figure 6). A pinned bubble detaches axisymmetrically from the cavity centre when its volume reaches the maximum of the r_0 curve; it detaches laterally when the contact angle reaches $\phi_0 = \pi$, which occurs only for $r_0 > 3.219\lambda$; and it transitions to spreading mode when the contact angle ϕ_0 falls below the contact angle ϕ_0 on the surrounding substrate. A spreading bubble then detaches from the surface when its volume reaches V_s . No stable bubble exists for $r_0 > 3.832\lambda$, above which lateral detachment is immediate.

4.2 Outlook

In summary, we have computed the maximum stable volume of axisymmetric bubbles on flat surfaces as a function of contact radius and contact angle, using a numerical solution of the Young–Laplace equation. The results unify the pinned and spreading detachment modes within a single framework, recover the classical Tate and Fritz limits, and identify the thresholds at which non-axisymmetric instabilities govern departure. All results scale universally with the capillary length λ and apply equally to pendant drops. The numerical code used in this study is freely available³⁴, and can provide an exact detachment criterion for full electrolyser simulations such as that of Ross *et al.*⁷, as well as quantitative guidance for designing electrodes with optimised wettability and cavity geometry to promote early bubble detachment and improve electrolysis efficiency. In future work, the model can be extended to account for heterogeneous surfaces, which give rise to contact angle hysteresis.

5 Data availability

The data and code that support the findings of this article are openly available on Zenodo at <https://doi.org/10.5281/zenodo.20720640> (ref. 34).

6 Author Contributions

I. Cannon: conceptualisation, software, formal analysis, visualisation, writing – original draft. S. Endres: software, writing – review & editing. M. Avila: conceptualisation, methodology, writing – review & editing. L. Mädler: conceptualisation, methodology, writing – review & editing.

7 Conflicts of interest

There are no conflicts to declare.

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